

# Scripting & Programming Foundations

The Complete Exam Cheat Sheet — All 11 Chapters

1 · Introduction

2 · Variables

3 · Branches

4 · Loops

5 · Arrays

6 · Functions

7 · Algorithms

8 · Design / SDLC

9 · Languages & Libraries

10 · Troubleshooting

11 · Debugging

Course competencies: (1) identify scripts for program requirements · (2) use fundamental programming elements · (3) explain the logic & outcome of simple algorithms.

Code examples use **Coral**, the pedagogical language/flowchart tool used throughout the course. Assessment = 1 final exam covering 3 competency units.

## HOW TO READ THIS GUIDE

Each chapter gives the definitions, the exact **Coral** syntax, worked patterns, reference tables, and diagrams you need. **Key Point** boxes = must-know facts. **Watch Out** boxes = the exact traps exams test. **Tip** boxes = memory hooks. Nothing here assumes prior programming knowledge — every term is defined on first use.

### Program = Input → Process → Output (the mental model behind everything)

A **computer program** is a sequence of instructions a computer carries out, one at a time, in order. A useful analogy: a program is like a **recipe** — an ordered list of steps. Almost every program follows three stages: **1 Input** get data (from a user, file, or sensor) → **2 Process** compute/decide → **3 Output** show a result.

**Flowchart shapes** (Coral draws these automatically):

| Shape         | Meaning                  |
|---------------|--------------------------|
| Oval          | Start / End (terminator) |
| Parallelogram | Input or Output          |
| Rectangle     | Process / assignment     |
| Diamond       | Decision (branch)        |

### 1.1–1.2 Programs & programming basics

- A **program** automates a task by executing statements top-to-bottom.
- Output with `Put x to output`; read input with `x = Get next input`.
- The computer executes statements **in order**; changing the order changes the result.

### 1.3 & 1.9 Comments and whitespace

- A **comment** is text for humans, ignored by the computer. In Coral use `// like this`.
- **Whitespace** (spaces, blank lines, indentation) is **mostly ignored** by the computer but is vital for human **readability**.

### 1.4 Brief history & 1.5 Computers all around us

- Computing moved from mechanical devices to electronic computers; the **information age** is roughly a century old and ongoing.
- **Embedded computers** live inside other devices (cars, appliances, thermostats) — most computers are embedded, not desktops.
- Desktop use is flat/declining while **mobile/smartphone** use keeps rising.

#### KEY POINT — EVERYTHING IS BITS

Inside a computer, **all** data (numbers, characters, images, sound) is stored as **bits**: 0s and 1s. A single 0/1 is a **bit**; 8 bits = 1 **byte**.

### 1.6 Representing information as bits

- **Binary** is base-2. Ex: binary `1100` = decimal **12**.
- **ASCII** encodes characters in **7 bits** → 128 characters (letters, digits, punctuation).
- **Unicode** (1991) uses more bits to represent 100,000+ characters, including non-English symbols/emoji.
- A word/string is stored as a **sequence of bit codes**, one per character.

### 1.7–1.8 Problem solving & why programming

- Programming is mostly **problem solving**: creating a methodical, step-by-step solution to a task.
- **Computational thinking** = precise, logical thinking; programming rewards **attention to detail** (one wrong symbol can break a program).
- Computing careers are numerous, well-paid, and growing; programming also benefits non-computing jobs.

### 1.10 Code vs pseudocode

- **Pseudocode** = an informal, human-readable sketch of a program (not runnable).
- Coral offers two synced views of the same program: a **flowchart** and **code**.

#### CHAPTER 1 RECAP

Computers surround us and are growing · all data is bits (0/1) · programming = methodical problem solving · attention to detail matters · pseudocode is an informal description of a program.

## 2.1–2.2 Variables &amp; assignment

- A **variable** is a named location in memory that holds one value.
- An **assignment** statement stores a value into a variable using `=`.
- Assignment works **right-to-left**: the right side is computed, then stored in the left variable.

```
integer numPeople
numPeople = 5           // store 5
numPeople = numPeople + 3 // now 8
```

**WATCH OUT — = IS NOT ==**

`=` means **assign** (put a value in a variable). `==` means **compare** for equality (Ch 3). `x = x + 1` is legal (increment), not algebra.

## 2.3 Identifiers (naming rules)

- An **identifier** is a name for a variable/function.
- May contain **letters, digits, underscores**; **cannot start with a digit**.
- **Case-sensitive** (`numCars`  $\neq$  `numcars`); reserved words can't be used.
- Convention: **camelCase** (`userAge`); use descriptive names.

## 2.4–2.5 Arithmetic expressions

| Op | Meaning            | Example            |
|----|--------------------|--------------------|
| +  | add                | <code>a + b</code> |
| -  | subtract           | <code>a - b</code> |
| *  | multiply           | <code>a * b</code> |
| /  | divide             | <code>a / b</code> |
| %  | modulo (remainder) | <code>a % b</code> |

Precedence: `( )` first, then `* / %`, then `+ -` (left to right).

## 2.7 Floating-point numbers

- A **float** holds numbers with a fractional part (e.g., `3.14`, `2.5`).
- An **integer** holds whole numbers only.

## 2.8 Using math functions

Built-in functions take **arguments** in `( )` and evaluate to a value.

```
SquareRoot(49.0) // 7.0
RaiseToPower(2.0, 3.0) // 8.0
AbsoluteValue(-4) // 4
```

## 2.9 Random numbers

- `RandomNumber()` returns a pseudo-random integer.
- `SeedRandomNumbers()` seeds the generator; the next value is computed from the previous one (deterministic given a seed).

**WATCH OUT — 2.10 INTEGER DIVISION**

If **both** operands of `/` are integers, division **truncates** (drops the fraction): `10 / 4`  $\rightarrow$  `2` (not 2.5); `3 / 4`  $\rightarrow$  `0`. Make one operand a float to get floating-point division.

## 2.11 Type conversions &amp; casts

- A **type conversion** changes one type to another (e.g., integer  $\rightarrow$  float).
- A **type cast** explicitly converts a value's type so the right operation happens (e.g., cast an int to float before dividing).

## 2.12 Modulo operator

- `%` gives the **remainder**: `17 % 5`  $\rightarrow$  `2`.
- Common uses: even/odd (`x % 2 == 0`), extracting digits, wrap-around.

**WATCH OUT — DIVIDE BY ZERO**

The second operand of `/` or `%` must never be `0` — a divide-by-zero error occurs at **runtime** and terminates the program.

## 2.13 Common data types

| Type                   | Holds         | Example              |
|------------------------|---------------|----------------------|
| <code>integer</code>   | whole numbers | <code>42</code>      |
| <code>float</code>     | decimals      | <code>3.14</code>    |
| <code>character</code> | one symbol    | <code>'A'</code>     |
| <code>string</code>    | text          | <code>"hello"</code> |
| <code>boolean</code>   | true / false  | <code>true</code>    |

## 2.14 Constants

A **constant** is a named value that **cannot change** after it is set. Use constants to name fixed values (rates, limits, physical constants) so code is readable and easy to update. Convention: **UPPER\_CASE** names.

```
constant float SOUND_SPEED = 761.207
// use SOUND_SPEED instead of a "magic number"
```

## CHAPTER 2 RECAP

Variable = named storage · `=` assigns right-to-left · identifiers can't start with a digit & are case-sensitive · int/int truncates · `%` = remainder · never divide by 0 · casts convert types · constants hold unchangeable values.

### 3.1–3.2 Branches: if / if-else / if-elseif-else

A **branch** is a sequence of statements executed only when a condition is true. In a flowchart a **decision** (diamond) creates a **true** branch and a **false** branch.

```
// if – do something only when true
if userAge > 65
    hotelRate = hotelRate - 20

// if-else – choose one of two paths
if score >= 60
    Put "Pass" to output
else
    Put "Fail" to output

// if-elseif-else – choose one of many
if temp > 90
    Put "Hot" to output
elseif temp > 60
    Put "Warm" to output
else
    Put "Cold" to output
```

#### KEY POINT — PICK THE RIGHT STRUCTURE

Use **if** for one optional action · **if-else** for two mutually-exclusive paths · **if-elseif-else** when exactly one of several cases applies · **multiple separate ifs** when conditions are independent and more than one can run.

### 3.4 Detecting ranges

Combine relational operators with **and** to test a range:

```
if (nthPerson >= 1) and (nthPerson <= 5)
    Put "First five" to output
```

### 3.3 Equality & relational operators

| Operator                   | Meaning                          |
|----------------------------|----------------------------------|
| <code>==</code>            | equal to (equality)              |
| <code>!=</code>            | not equal to                     |
| <code>&lt; / &gt;</code>   | less than / greater than         |
| <code>&lt;= / &gt;=</code> | less-or-equal / greater-or-equal |

Two-character operators (`>=`, `<=`, `==`, `!=`) must be written exactly — you can't rearrange the symbols.

### 3.5 Logical operators: and, or, not

A **logical operator** treats operands as true/false and evaluates to true/false.

| Op         | True when...              |
|------------|---------------------------|
| <b>and</b> | both sides are true       |
| <b>or</b>  | at least one side is true |
| <b>not</b> | flips true ↔ false        |

### 3.6 Order of evaluation (precedence)

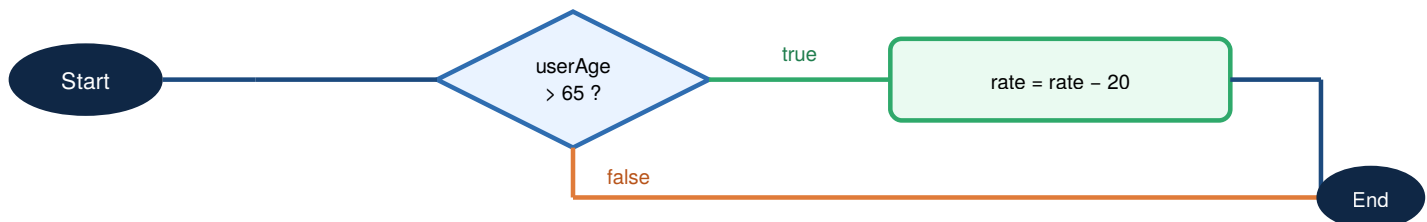
Operators evaluate in this order (highest first):

( )   not   \* / %   + -   < <= > >=   == !=   and   or

Use parentheses to make intent explicit and avoid mistakes.

#### WATCH OUT — 3.8 FLOATING-POINT COMPARISON

Never test floats with `==`: tiny rounding errors make equal-looking values differ. Instead check that the difference is within a small range: `AbsoluteValue(a - b) < 0.0001`.



3.1 A decision creates a true branch and a false branch; both paths rejoin afterward.

#### CHAPTER 3 RECAP

Branch = conditional statements · `==` tests equality (not `=`) · relational: `<` `>` `<=` `>=` `==` `!=` · logical: **and** **or** **not** · precedence: ( ) → not → arithmetic → relational → equality → and → or · compare floats with a tolerance, never `==`.

### 4.1–4.2 What a loop is

A **loop** repeatedly executes its body while a condition is true. Each pass is an **iteration**. The condition is checked, the body runs, and control returns to the condition.

### 4.6 while loop

Checks the condition **first**; runs the body only while it's true (may run 0 times).

```
integer curPower
curPower = 2
userNum = Get next input
while userNum == 1
    Put curPower to output
    Put "\n" to output
    curPower = curPower * 2
    userNum = Get next input
Put "Done." to output
```

### 4.4–4.5 & 4.10 for loop (loop N times)

A **for** loop packs three parts on one line: **init ; condition ; update**. Ideal for counting.

```
integer i
integer sum
sum = 0
for i = 0; i < 3; i = i + 1
    sum = sum + i
Put sum to output // 0+1+2 = 3
```

### KEY POINT — WHILE VS FOR

Use a **for** loop when you know/count the number of iterations (loop **N** times). Use a **while** loop when you repeat until a condition changes and the count isn't known in advance (e.g., "keep reading until the user enters -1").

### 4.9 do-while loop

Executes the body **first**, then checks the condition — so it always runs **at least once**.

```
do
    userNum = Get next input
while userNum != 0
```

### 4.7 Nested loops

A **nested loop** is a loop inside another loop (an **inner** loop inside an **outer** loop). For each single pass of the outer loop, the inner loop runs fully. Used for grids, tables, and pattern printing.

```
for r = 0; r < 3; r = r + 1
    for c = 0; c < 3; c = c + 1
        Put "*" to output
    Put "\n" to output
```

### WATCH OUT — INFINITE LOOPS

If the loop condition **never becomes false**, the loop runs forever. Always change a variable in the body that moves the condition toward false (increment a counter, read new input, etc.).

### 4.3 Common loop patterns (memorize these)

#### Sum

```
for i=0; i<n; i=i+1
    sum = sum + val
```

#### Count matches

```
if val < 0
    negCount = negCount + 1
```

#### Find maximum

```
if val > maxVal
    maxVal = val
```

### CHAPTER 4 RECAP

**while** = check then run (0+ times) · **for** = counted iterations (init;cond;update) · **do-while** = run then check (1+ times) · nested loop = loop within a loop · always progress toward the exit to avoid an infinite loop.

### 5.1 Array concept

- An **array** is an ordered list of items of the **same data type and fixed size**.
- Each item is an **element**; its position is an **index**.
- A single-value (non-array) variable is a **scalar** variable.
- Analogy: a scalar is a **truck** (one container); an array is a **train** (many cars).

#### KEY POINT — INDICES START AT 0

A 5-element array has valid indices **0,1,2,3,4**. The last index is **size - 1**.  
1. Element **x[0]** is the first item, not **x[1]**.

### 5.2 Declaring & accessing arrays

```
integer array(5) itemCounts // 5 elements
itemCounts[0] = Get next input
itemCounts[1] = 99
Put itemCounts[1] to output // 99
```

**arrayName.size** gives the number of elements — use it to loop safely.

### 5.3–5.4 Iterating & finding max/min

Walk every element with a **for** loop from **0** to **size - 1**.

```
integer i
integer maxVal
maxVal = userVals[0] // seed with 1st element
for i = 0; i < userVals.size; i = i + 1
  if userVals[i] > maxVal
    maxVal = userVals[i]
```

#### WATCH OUT — SEEDING MAX/MIN

Initialize **maxVal** to the array's **first element**, not to 0. Seeding with 0 fails if every value is negative (0 would wrongly "win").

### 5.5 Swapping two variables

To swap two values you need a **third, temporary** variable (like using a free hand to swap two objects).

```
integer temp
temp = x // save x
x = y // x gets y
y = temp // y gets old x
```

itemCounts

|     |     |     |     |     |
|-----|-----|-----|-----|-----|
| 53  | 63  | 27  | 92  | 32  |
| [0] | [1] | [2] | [3] | [4] |

.size = 5

5.1 An array stores many same-type elements, each reached by a 0-based index.

#### CHAPTER 5 RECAP

Array = fixed-size ordered list of one type · indices are 0-based, last = size-1 · iterate with a for loop to **.size** · seed max/min with element [0] · swapping needs a temp variable · scalar = single-value variable.

### 6.1 Function basics

- A **function** is a named group of statements you run by **calling** its name.
- A **parameter** is an input named in the function **definition**.
- An **argument** is the actual value passed in the function **call**.
- A function's **local variables** exist only inside it (**scope**).

```
// definition: PrintPizzaArea has 1 parameter
Function PrintPizzaArea(float pizzaDiameter)
    returns nothing
    float piVal
    float pizzaRadius
    piVal = 3.14159265
    pizzaRadius = pizzaDiameter / 2.0
    Put piVal * pizzaRadius * pizzaRadius to output

// call: 12.0 is the argument
PrintPizzaArea(12.0)
```

#### KEY POINT — PARAMETER VS ARGUMENT

**Parameter** = the variable in the definition (a placeholder). **Argument** = the real value you supply when calling. The argument is copied into the parameter.

### 6.2 Return values

A function can **return** a value with a **return statement**, which sends the value back and exits the function. If it returns nothing, use **returns nothing**.

```
Function ComputeSquare(integer x)
    returns integer y
    y = x * x
    return y

// 4 + 36 = 40
sumOfSquares = ComputeSquare(2)
               + ComputeSquare(6)
```

A function call is an **expression** — it evaluates to its returned value and can be used inside larger expressions.

### 6.3 Why define functions?

- **Readability** — Main stays short and understandable.
- **Reuse** — write once, call many times.
- **Modularity** — build/test pieces separately, then combine.
- Guideline: a function usually shouldn't exceed ~20 lines.

### 6.3 Modular & incremental development

- **Modular development**: divide a program into separate functions that can be developed/tested independently.
- **Incremental development**: write & test a **small** amount of code, then add and test more.

### 6.6 Array parameters

```
Function SumList(integer array(?) numList)
    returns integer total
    for i = 0; i < numList.size; i = i + 1
        total = total + numList[i]
    return total
```

*array(?) means the function accepts an array of any size; use .size inside.*

#### CHAPTER 6 RECAP

Function = reusable named block · **parameter** (definition) vs **argument** (call) · **return** sends a value back & exits · functions improve readability/reuse/modularity · build incrementally · pass arrays with **array(?)**.

### 7.1 What an algorithm is

- An **algorithm** is a sequence of steps that solves a problem, producing correct output for **any valid input**.
- **Correctness** is the top priority — an algorithm must work for all valid inputs, not just one example.
- Before coding, a programmer first designs a correct algorithm.

### 7.2 Computational problems

A **computational problem** is a problem solvable by a computer. It specifies exactly three things:

| Part            | Meaning                   | Example                    |
|-----------------|---------------------------|----------------------------|
| <b>Input</b>    | the data given            | an array of integers       |
| <b>Question</b> | what's asked of the input | what is the maximum value? |
| <b>Output</b>   | the desired result        | the maximum integer        |

- An **algorithm** describes the steps that solve a computational problem.
- One problem can be solved by **many** algorithms — finding the best one is the work.
- Computational problems recur across domains (e-commerce, biology, transportation), so recognizing that a task is a known problem lets you reuse a known algorithm.

### 7.3 Algorithm efficiency

- Efficiency = how much **runtime** (operations) and **memory** an algorithm uses.
- **Best case**: fewest operations; **worst case**: most operations. Analyze the worst case to be safe.
- An algorithm with **polynomial** runtime is considered **efficient**; exponential is not.
- Keep the input as a variable so runtime can be described as it grows.

### 7.4 Linear search

Check each element from the start until the key is found. Works on **any** list (sorted or not).

```
Function LinearSearch(integer array(?) numbers,
                    integer key)
    returns integer keyIndex
keyIndex = -1
for i = 0;
    (i < numbers.size) and (keyIndex == -1);
    i = i + 1
    if numbers[i] == key
        keyIndex = i
```

Worst case: key is last or absent → checks all  $N$  elements.

### 7.5 Binary search

Faster search that requires a **sorted, directly-accessible** list (like an array). Repeatedly check the **middle** and discard half the remaining elements.

```
Function BinarySearch(integer array(?) numbers,
                    integer key)
    returns integer mid
integer low
integer high
low = 0
high = numbers.size - 1
while (high >= low) and (numbers[mid] != key)
    mid = (high + low) / 2
    if numbers[mid] < key
        low = mid + 1
    elseif numbers[mid] > key
        high = mid - 1
```

#### KEY POINT — LINEAR VS BINARY

**Linear**: works on any list, up to  $N$  checks. **Binary**: needs a **sorted** array, about  $\log_2(N)$  checks — e.g., 1,024 items → ~10 checks, not 1,024. Binary search halves the problem each step.

### 7.6–7.7 Sorting & the knapsack problem

- **Sorting** arranges elements in order (e.g., by repeatedly **swapping** out-of-order pairs).
- **0-1 Knapsack**: choose items to maximize value within a weight limit. Trying all combinations is optimal but slow; a **heuristic** makes a fast, "good-enough" (possibly non-optimal) choice.



## Binary search for 16

|   |   |   |    |    |    |    |    |
|---|---|---|----|----|----|----|----|
| 2 | 4 | 7 | 10 | 16 | 32 | 45 | 87 |
|---|---|---|----|----|----|----|----|

1) mid=7, 16>7 → go right

2) mid=32, 16<32 → go left

3) mid=16 → found

7.5 Each comparison discards half the list, so binary search finds the key in  $\sim \log_2(N)$  steps.

### CHAPTER 7 RECAP

Algorithm = correct steps for any valid input · efficiency = runtime + memory (worst case matters; polynomial = efficient) · linear search = any list,  $\leq N$  checks · binary search = sorted array,  $\sim \log_2 N$  checks · heuristics trade optimality for speed.

## 8 The Design Process (SDLC, Objects, UML)

SOFTWARE DESIGN

### 8.1 System Development Life Cycle (SDLC)

The **SDLC** is the set of phases used to build software:

| Phase          | Purpose                                            |
|----------------|----------------------------------------------------|
| Analysis       | Define the program's <b>goals</b> (what to build)  |
| Design         | Define the specifics of <b>how</b> to build it     |
| Implementation | <b>Write</b> the program (code)                    |
| Testing        | Check the program correctly <b>meets the goals</b> |

### 8.2 Objects

- An **object** groups related **data (variables)** and **operations (functions)** into one higher-level unit.
- Objects model real things (a Car object bundles its data and behaviors), keeping large programs organized.

### 8.5 Waterfall vs Agile

| Waterfall                     | Agile                              |
|-------------------------------|------------------------------------|
| Phases done once, in sequence | Short repeated cycles (iterations) |
| Each phase can be long        | Implementation repeats many times  |
| Hard to change late           | Adapts to change continuously      |

### 8.3–8.4 UML diagrams

**UML** (Unified Modeling Language) is a standard set of diagrams for modeling software.

| Diagram  | Shows                                   | SDLC phase     |
|----------|-----------------------------------------|----------------|
| Use case | What the user can do / goals            | Analysis       |
| Class    | Classes: names, data members, functions | Design         |
| Activity | Flow of actions (like a flowchart)      | Implementation |
| Sequence | Order of events/messages over time      | Testing        |

#### KEY POINT — DIAGRAM ↔ PHASE

**Use case** → goals (analysis) · **Class** → structure/how (design) · **Activity** → program steps (implementation) · **Sequence** → event order for verifying I/O (testing).

#### WATCH OUT — STRUCTURAL VS BEHAVIORAL

A **class diagram** is **structural** (it shows structure, and can show data-member types). A **sequence diagram** is **behavioral** and shows the order of events — it does **not** contain program code.



8.1 The four SDLC phases (waterfall runs them once in order; agile repeats them in cycles).

### CHAPTER 8 RECAP

SDLC = Analysis → Design → Implementation → Testing · object = data + operations bundled · UML diagrams: use case / class / activity / sequence · waterfall = once-through, agile = iterative.

### 9.1 Compiled vs interpreted

|             | Compiled                                                           | Interpreted (scripting)                               |
|-------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------|
| How it runs | A <b>compiler</b> converts the whole program to machine code first | An <b>interpreter</b> runs it one statement at a time |
| Speed       | Runs <b>faster</b>                                                 | Runs <b>slower</b>                                    |
| Portability | Machine-specific build                                             | Runs on any machine with the interpreter              |
| Examples    | C, C++, Java*                                                      | Python, JavaScript, MATLAB                            |

*A scripting language is another name for an interpreted language.*

### 9.1 Static vs dynamic typing

- **Statically typed:** a variable's type is fixed and checked before running (e.g., C, C++, Java).
- **Dynamically typed:** a variable's type can change while running (e.g., Python). Ex: `x = "Hi"` then `x = 5` is allowed.

### 9.1 Other language kinds

- **Object-oriented** languages have strong support for objects (e.g., C++, Java, Python).
- **Markup languages** describe the structure/format of a document rather than compute — e.g., **HTML** for web pages (tags like `<title>`, *italic*, **bold**).
- Kinds are **not exclusive** — a language can be object-oriented *and* dynamically typed.

### 9.2 Libraries

- A **library** is a set of **pre-written functions** for common tasks (math, statistics, graphics).
- Libraries **improve productivity**: reuse tested code instead of writing everything from scratch.
- A program can include several libraries for different purposes.

#### KEY POINT — QUICK CLASSIFIERS

**Faster + machine code** = compiled · **runs line-by-line, portable** = interpreted · **type fixed** = static · **type can change at runtime** = dynamic · **HTML** = markup · **pre-written functions** = library.

#### CHAPTER 9 RECAP

Compiled (C/C++/Java, fast) vs interpreted (Python/JS/MATLAB, portable) · static vs dynamic typing · object-oriented & markup (HTML) languages · libraries = reusable pre-written functions that boost productivity.

### 10.1 Troubleshooting process

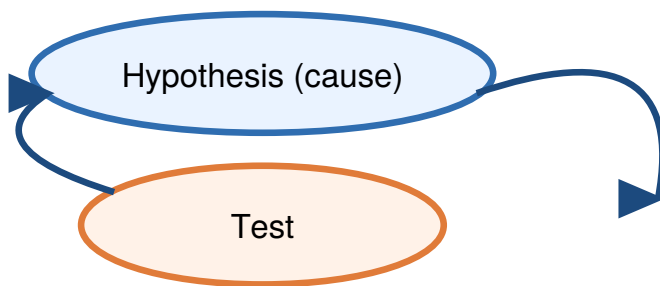
- **Troubleshooting** is a **systematic** process for finding and fixing a problem's cause.
- A **hypothesis** is a proposed cause. A **test** is a procedure whose result **validates** or **invalidates** that hypothesis.
- The core loop: form a hypothesis → run a test → validate or invalidate → repeat until the cause is found.

#### KEY POINT — TEST OUTCOMES

A good test should clearly **validate** (confirm) or **invalidate** (rule out) a hypothesis. If a test can't do either, it isn't useful.

### 10.2 Asymmetric tests

An **asymmetric test** gives a more conclusive answer on one outcome than the other. Ex: plugging a lamp into a known-working outlet — if it works, "lamp is broken" is invalidated (conclusive); if it doesn't, the result is less certain.



*10.1 Troubleshooting is a cycle: a test either validates a hypothesis (cause found) or invalidates it (try the next).*

#### CHAPTER 10 RECAP

Troubleshooting = systematic hypothesis → test → (in)validate cycle · asymmetric test = more conclusive one way · test most-likely/easiest first · knowledge drives hypotheses · hierarchical hypotheses = a tree · halve the system to localize faults.

### 10.3 & 10.6 Creating hypotheses from knowledge

- Start with the **most-likely** and **most easily-testable** hypotheses first.
- Hypotheses and tests come from **knowledge** of how the system works — the more you learn, the better your hypotheses.
- Create hypotheses in **groups**, then test them in a sensible order.

### 10.10 Hierarchical hypotheses

Hypotheses can form a **tree** traversed top-down: a broad hypothesis splits into sub-hypotheses until a specific cause is pinpointed.

### 10.x Binary search when troubleshooting

To locate a fault in a large system, split it in **half**, test which half contains the problem, discard the good half, and repeat — quickly narrowing down the cause (same halving idea as binary search).

Validated → cause found

Invalidated → next hypothesis

### 11.1 Basic debugging

- **Debugging** = finding and fixing **bugs** (errors) in a program. It applies the troubleshooting cycle (hypothesis → test → validate/ invalidate) to code.
- Even one wrong character among thousands can cause a bug, so debugging is a normal, essential skill.

#### 11.1 Debug output statements

Insert temporary **output statements** that print variable values so you can see what the program is actually doing and compare it to what you expect.

```
celsiusValue = 100
Put "DEBUG: celsiusValue is " to output
Put celsiusValue to output
fahrenheitValue = celsiusValue * (9.0 / 5.0) + 32
```

#### WATCH OUT — CLEAN UP AFTER

Remove (or disable) debug output statements **once the cause is found**, so they don't clutter real output.

### 11.2–11.5 Common bug categories

| Bug type                 | Symptom / cause                                               |
|--------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>Calculation error</b> | Wrong arithmetic/formula (e.g., int division, wrong operator) |
| <b>Logic error</b>       | Wrong condition/branch → wrong result for some inputs         |
| <b>Loop error</b>        | Off-by-one, wrong bounds, or never-ending loop                |
| <b>Function error</b>    | Wrong parameters/return, bad call, or scope mistake           |

#### 11.x Hierarchical / binary-search debugging

- Split the code into **regions** and test which region contains the bug, then split that region again — a **binary search** through the code to localize the fault fast.
- **Hierarchical debugging**: form broad hypotheses, then narrow to specific lines (a tree of hypotheses, like Ch 10).

#### KEY POINT — A TEST EITHER CONFIRMS OR RULES OUT

Debugging mirrors troubleshooting: run the program, form a hypothesis about the faulty statement, add a debug test to **validate** or **invalidate** it, and repeat until the bug is isolated and fixed.

#### 11.6 Programming knowledge

Beyond basic debugging, more advanced techniques exist (assertions, debugging tools, unit tests), but the hypothesis-driven approach above is the universal foundation.

#### CHAPTER 11 RECAP

Debugging = troubleshooting for code · debug output statements reveal actual variable values · bug types: calculation, logic, loop, function · localize bugs by halving the code (binary-search debugging) · remove debug prints when done.



## Declarations, I/O & assignment

```
integer count
float price
constant float PI = 3.14159
count = Get next input
count = count + 1
Put "Total: " to output
Put count to output
Put "\n" to output // newline
```

## Branch

```
if x > 10
    Put "big" to output
elseif x == 10
    Put "ten" to output
else
    Put "small" to output
```

## Function

```
Function Cube(integer n) returns integer c
    c = n * n * n
    return c
```

## Loops

```
// while
while n > 0
    n = n - 1

// for (count N times)
for i = 0; i < n; i = i + 1
    Put i to output

// do-while (runs ≥ 1x)
do
    x = Get next input
while x != 0
```

## Arrays

```
integer array(5) vals
vals[0] = 10
Put vals.size to output // 5
for i = 0; i < vals.size; i = i + 1
    Put vals[i] to output
```

## Operators (high → low precedence)

( ) not \* / % + - < <= > >= == != and or

/ truncates for int÷int · % = remainder · compare floats with a tolerance, never == .

## EXAM-DAY ONE-LINERS (ALL 11 CHAPTERS)

**Ch1** data = bits; ASCII 7-bit/128 chars. **Ch2** int÷int truncates; never ÷0; % = remainder; constants don't change. **Ch3** == compares, and/or/ not ; float compare = tolerance. **Ch4** while(0+)/for(counted)/do-while(1+); avoid infinite loops. **Ch5** arrays 0-indexed, last=size-1; swap needs temp. **Ch6** parameter(def) vs argument(call); return exits. **Ch7** linear=any list ≤N; binary=sorted ~log<sub>2</sub>N. **Ch8** SDLC = Analysis → Design → Implementation → Testing; UML use-case/class/activity/sequence; waterfall vs agile. **Ch9** compiled(fast) vs interpreted(portable); static vs dynamic typing; HTML=markup; library=pre-written functions. **Ch10** hypothesis+test → validate/invalidate; asymmetric & hierarchical hypotheses. **Ch11** debug with output statements; bug types calc/logic/loop/function; binary-search the code.